Bermudan Swaptions in a One-Factor HJM Model

Calibration, PDE and Monte Carlo Pricing, and a Review of the Model

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Abstract

We price co-terminal Bermudan swaptions in the one-factor Heath–Jarrow–Morton model with separable volatility $\sigma_f(t,T) = \sigma(t)e^{-\lambda(T-t)}$. The model is calibrated exactly to co-terminal European swaptions quoted in normal volatility, by a sequential bootstrap built on Jamshidian's decomposition, and the Bermudan is priced by a finite-difference scheme on the Markov factor and by Longstaff–Schwartz Monte Carlo. Reviewing the original implementation, we show that its zero-coupon bond formula carries the convexity adjustment with the wrong sign: the model then violates the martingale property of discounted bonds by 1.8 % on a 7-year bond, prices the same European swaption at 0.0258 by Jamshidian and 0.0206 by the PDE, and undervalues the reference Bermudan by 11 %. We derive the correct formula, measure the other numerical issues (Monte Carlo discounting, regression bias, time scheme), and study how the mean-reversion parameter, which the calibration cannot identify, drives the Bermudan price through the correlation between exercise dates. All computations are reproduced by the interactive page https://yassinebarnicha.github.io/swaptions-hjm/.

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1 Introduction

A Bermudan swaption gives its holder the right to enter, on any of a set of dates $T_1 < \cdots < T_m$, an interest-rate swap that ends at a fixed final date T_N. Each exercise right alone is a European swaption, which the market quotes; the Bermudan adds the right to *choose* the date, and the value of that choice depends on how rates at the different dates are correlated, which European prices do not reveal. A pricing model must therefore (i) reproduce the Europeans, (ii) have a realistic dynamics across dates, and (iii) be numerically tractable for an optimal stopping problem.

The one-factor Gaussian HJM model with separable volatility (equivalently the Hull–White model with time-dependent volatility) meets the third requirement best: it is Markov in one Gaussian factor, bonds are exponential-affine in it, Europeans have closed forms, and the Bermudan reduces to a one-dimensional PDE. Its mean-reversion speed λ sets the inter-date correlation.

Contributions. This report documents the project and its review:

1. a self-contained derivation of the model (section 2), of the European pricing formulas (section 3) and of the calibration (section 4);
2. the PDE and Monte Carlo methods for the Bermudan, with their error analysis and convergence study (sections 5 to 7);
3. the model review (section 8): a sign error in the bond formula, exposed by a martingale test, and its impact;
4. a study of mean reversion under recalibration (section 9).

2 The model

2.1 The HJM framework

Let $P(t,T)$ be the price at t of the zero-coupon bond paying 1 at T, $f(t,T) = -\partial_T \ln P(t,T)$ the instantaneous forward rate, $r_t = f(t,t)$ the short rate and $\beta_t = \exp \int_0^t r_s \, \mathrm{d}s$ the bank account. Under the risk-neutral measure $\mathbb{Q}$, with a one-dimensional Brownian motion W, HJM specify

$$\mathrm{d}f(t,T) = \mu(t,T)\,\mathrm{d}t + \sigma_f(t,T)\,\mathrm{d}W_t, \qquad f(0,T) = f^{\mathrm{mkt}}(0,T). \tag{1}$$

Proposition 1 (HJM drift condition)**.** *Discounted bond prices $P(t,T)/\beta_t$ are $\mathbb{Q}$-martingales for all T if and only if*

$$\mu(t,T) = \sigma_f(t,T) \int_t^T \sigma_f(t,u)\,\mathrm{d}u. \tag{2}$$

Proof. Let $\Sigma(t,T) = \int_t^T \sigma_f(t,u)\,\mathrm{d}u$ and $A(t,T) = \int_t^T \mu(t,u)\,\mathrm{d}u$. From $\ln P(t,T) = -\int_t^T f(t,u)\,\mathrm{d}u$ and the stochastic Fubini theorem, $\mathrm{d}\ln P(t,T) = \big(r_t - A(t,T)\big)\,\mathrm{d}t - \Sigma(t,T)\,\mathrm{d}W_t$, so $\mathrm{d}(P/\beta)/(P/\beta) = \big(\frac{1}{2}\Sigma^2 - A\big)\,\mathrm{d}t - \Sigma\,\mathrm{d}W_t$. The drift vanishes for all T iff $A(t,T) = \frac{1}{2}\Sigma(t,T)^2$; differentiating in T gives (2). □

2.2 Separable volatility and the Markov factor

The model uses

$$\sigma_f(t,T) = \sigma(t)\,e^{-\lambda(T-t)} = \eta(t)\,b(T), \qquad \eta(t) = \sigma(t)e^{\lambda t}, \quad b(T) = e^{-\lambda T}, \tag{3}$$

with $\sigma(\cdot)$ piecewise constant on the exercise grid: $\sigma(t) = \sigma_k$ for $t \in (T_{k-1}, T_k]$, $T_0 = 0$. Define

$$\begin{aligned} X_t &= \int_0^t \eta(u)\,\mathrm{d}W_u, \qquad \alpha(t) = \int_0^t \eta(u)^2\,\mathrm{d}u, \\ \bar{B}(t) &= \int_0^t b(u)\,\mathrm{d}u = \frac{1-e^{-\lambda t}}{\lambda}, \qquad \gamma(t) = \int_0^t \eta(u)^2\,\bar{B}(u)\,\mathrm{d}u. \end{aligned} \tag{4}$$

X is a continuous Gaussian martingale, $X_t \sim \mathcal{N}(0, \alpha(t))$, with independent increments. On a segment $[a,b]$ where $\sigma \equiv \sigma_j$,

$$\alpha(b) - \alpha(a) = \sigma_j^2\,\frac{e^{2\lambda b} - e^{2\lambda a}}{2\lambda}, \qquad \gamma(b) - \gamma(a) = \frac{\sigma_j^2}{\lambda}\left[\frac{e^{2\lambda b} - e^{2\lambda a}}{2\lambda} - \frac{e^{\lambda b} - e^{\lambda a}}{\lambda}\right], \tag{5}$$

with the limits $\sigma_j^2(b-a)$ and $\frac{1}{2}\sigma_j^2(b^2-a^2)$ when $\lambda \to 0$.

Proposition 2 (Forward rates, short rate and bonds)**.** *For $t \le T$,*

$$f(t,T) = f(0,T) + b(T)\big[\bar{B}(T)\,\alpha(t) - \gamma(t) + X_t\big], \tag{6}$$

$$r_t = f(0,t) + e^{-\lambda t}\big[\bar{B}(t)\,\alpha(t) - \gamma(t)\big] + e^{-\lambda t}X_t, \tag{7}$$

$$P(t,T) = \frac{P(0,T)}{P(0,t)}\exp\Big(-D(t,T)\big[c(t,T) + X_t\big]\Big), \tag{8}$$

where $D(t,T) = \bar{B}(T) - \bar{B}(t)$ and $c(t,T) = \frac{1}{2}\big(\bar{B}(T) + \bar{B}(t)\big)\alpha(t) - \gamma(t)$.

Proof. By (2), $\mu(s,T) = \eta(s)^2 b(T)\big(\bar{B}(T) - \bar{B}(s)\big)$. Integrating $\mathrm{d}f(s,T)$ over $s \in [0,t]$,

$$f(t,T) = f(0,T) + b(T)\int_0^t \eta(s)^2\big(\bar{B}(T) - \bar{B}(s)\big)\,\mathrm{d}s + b(T)\int_0^t \eta(s)\,\mathrm{d}W_s,$$

which is (6); (7) is $T = t$. For the bond, $\int_t^T b(u)\,\mathrm{d}u = D(t,T)$ and $\int_t^T b(u)\bar{B}(u)\,\mathrm{d}u = \frac{1}{2}\big(\bar{B}(T)^2 - \bar{B}(t)^2\big) = \frac{1}{2}D(t,T)\big(\bar{B}(T) + \bar{B}(t)\big)$, so $\int_t^T \big[f(t,u) - f(0,u)\big]\,\mathrm{d}u = D(t,T)\big[c(t,T) + X_t\big]$ and (8) follows from $P(0,T)/P(0,t) = \exp\big(-\int_t^T f(0,u)\,\mathrm{d}u\big)$. □

Remark 1 (Hull–White). Applying Itô's formula to (7) gives $\mathrm{d}r_t = \big(\theta(t) - \lambda r_t\big)\,\mathrm{d}t + \sigma(t)\,\mathrm{d}W_t$ for a deterministic $\theta(\cdot)$ that fits the initial curve: the model is the Hull–White model with time-dependent volatility. λ is the speed of mean reversion of the short rate and $\sigma(t)$ its normal volatility.

Remark 2 (Dynamics of bond ratios). From (8), the diffusion part of $\ln P(t,T)$ is $-D(t,T)\,\eta(t)\,\mathrm{d}W_t$, hence that of $\ln\big(P(t,T_i)/P(t,T_e)\big)$ is $-\big(\bar{B}(T_i) - \bar{B}(T_e)\big)\eta(t)\,\mathrm{d}W_t$: a deterministic constant times $\mathrm{d}X_t$. Its integrated variance on $[0,T_e]$ is $D(T_e,T_i)^2\,\alpha(T_e)$.

3 European swaptions

3.1 Swaps and market quotes

A payer swap starting at T_0 with fixed rate K, payment dates $T_1 < \cdots < T_n$ and accruals τ_i is worth, at T_0, $1 - P(T_0, T_n) - K \sum_i \tau_i P(T_0, T_i)$ per unit notional. With the annuity $A_t = \sum_i \tau_i P(t, T_i)$ and the forward swap rate $S_t = (P(t, T_0) - P(t, T_n))/A_t$, the swap value is $A_t(S_t - K)$ and the payer swaption pays $A_{T_0}(S_{T_0} - K)^+$. Under the annuity measure $\mathbb{Q}^A$ (numéraire A), S is a martingale. The market convention (Bachelier) takes $\mathrm{d}S_t = \sigma_N \, \mathrm{d}W_t^A$, so that

$$V_0^{\text{pay}} = A_0 \, \mathbb{E}^A\big[(S_{T_0} - K)^+\big] = A_0 \Big[(S_0 - K)\,\Phi(d) + \sigma_N \sqrt{T_0}\,\varphi(d)\Big], \qquad d = \frac{S_0 - K}{\sigma_N \sqrt{T_0}}, \tag{9}$$

and $V_0^{\text{rec}} = A_0\big[(K - S_0)\Phi(-d) + \sigma_N \sqrt{T_0}\,\varphi(d)\big]$. A quote σ_N is thus a price.

3.2 Options on zero-coupon bonds

Proposition 3. *The price at 0 of a put with expiry T_e and strike K on the bond $P(\cdot, T_i)$, $T_i > T_e$, is*

$$\begin{aligned} \mathrm{ZBP}(T_e, T_i, K) &= K\,P(0, T_e)\,\Phi(-h + v) - P(0, T_i)\,\Phi(-h), \\ v = D(T_e, T_i)\sqrt{\alpha(T_e)}, &\qquad h = \frac{1}{v} \ln \frac{P(0, T_i)}{K\,P(0, T_e)} + \frac{v}{2}, \end{aligned} \tag{10}$$

and the call is $\mathrm{ZBC} = P(0, T_i)\Phi(h) - K\,P(0, T_e)\Phi(h - v)$.

Proof. Under the T_e-forward measure, $Y_t = P(t, T_i)/P(t, T_e)$ is a martingale; by remark 2 it is lognormal with total variance v^2 at T_e, and $Y_{T_e} = P(T_e, T_i)$. Then $\mathrm{ZBP} = P(0, T_e)\,\mathbb{E}^{T_e}[(K - Y_{T_e})^+]$ is Black's formula with forward $Y_0 = P(0, T_i)/P(0, T_e)$. □

3.3 Jamshidian's decomposition

Proposition 4 (Jamshidian)**.** *Let $c_i = K\tau_i$ for $i < n$ and $c_n = 1 + K\tau_n$. There is a unique $x^\star$ with $\sum_i c_i P(T_0, T_i; x^\star) = 1$, and with $K_i = P(T_0, T_i; x^\star)$,*

$$V_0^{\text{pay}} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} c_i \,\mathrm{ZBP}(T_0, T_i, K_i), \qquad V_0^{\text{rec}} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} c_i \,\mathrm{ZBC}(T_0, T_i, K_i). \tag{11}$$

Proof. The payer payoff is $\big(1 - \sum_i c_i P(T_0, T_i; X_{T_0})\big)^+$. By (8), each $P(T_0, T_i; x)$ is strictly decreasing in x ($D > 0$), from $+\infty$ to 0, so $\sum_i c_i P(T_0, T_i; x)$ crosses 1 exactly once, at $x^\star$. For $x \geq x^\star$ every $P(T_0, T_i; x) \leq K_i$ and for $x < x^\star$ every $P(T_0, T_i; x) > K_i$; in both cases $\big(1 - \sum_i c_i P_i\big)^+ = \sum_i c_i (K_i - P_i)^+$, using $\sum_i c_i K_i = 1$. Take expectations and apply proposition 3. □

The implementation finds $x^\star$ with Brent's method on $[-10, 10]$. Put–call parity (payer − receiver = forward swap) holds to 10^{-8}.

4 Calibration

4.1 The co-terminal bootstrap

Each exercise date T_k carries the co-terminal European swaption $T_k \to T_N$, quoted at $\sigma_{N,k}$. By propositions 3 and 4, its model price depends on $\sigma(\cdot)$ only through $\alpha(T_k)$, which by (5) depends on $\sigma_1, \ldots, \sigma_k$ only. Each bond put increases with v, so the price is continuous and strictly increasing in σ_k once $\sigma_1, \ldots, \sigma_{k-1}$ are fixed.

Proposition 5. *Given λ and $\sigma_1, \ldots, \sigma_{k-1}$, the equation $V_k^{\text{model}}(\sigma_k) = V_k^{\text{Bach}}(\sigma_{N,k})$ has at most one solution $\sigma_k > 0$; it exists iff the market price exceeds the model price with $\sigma_k = 0$, i.e. iff the market does not imply less total variance at T_k than is already accumulated on $[0, T_{k-1}]$.*

The bootstrap solves the dates in increasing order with Brent's method on $[\sigma_{\min}, \sigma_{\max}]$, and the fit is exact (residuals below 10^{-10}). When the condition of proposition 5 fails, the page reports the instrument that cannot be fitted instead of returning a wrong σ.

4.2 Mean reversion is not identified

For every λ in a wide range, proposition 5 produces a $\sigma(\cdot)$ that reproduces all the co-terminal Europeans exactly. The calibration set therefore leaves a one-parameter family of perfectly calibrated models, whose Bermudan prices differ (section 9): on our reference case, from 0.01656 ($\lambda = 0$) to 0.01848 ($\lambda = 0.3$), a spread of 12 %. λ must be set from other information: historical correlation of rates, or other instruments (caps, diagonal or column swaptions) whose prices depend on inter-date correlation.

5 The Bermudan swaption

The exercise value at T_k is the underlying co-terminal swap, $h_k(x) = \big(1 - P(T_k, T_N; x) - K \sum_{T_i > T_k} \tau_i P(T_k, T_i; x)\big)^+$ for a payer. The price is the value of an optimal stopping problem over the stopping times τ taking values in $\{T_1, \dots, T_m\}$:

$$V_0 = \sup_{\tau} \mathbb{E}^{\mathbb{Q}}\big[\beta_\tau^{-1} h_\tau(X_\tau)\big]. \tag{12}$$

Since X is Markov, dynamic programming gives

$$V_{T_m} = h_m, \qquad V_{T_k} = \max\left(h_k, C_k\right), \qquad C_k(x) = \mathbb{E}^{\mathbb{Q}}\Big[e^{-\int_{T_k}^{T_{k+1}} r_s \,\mathrm{d}s} V_{T_{k+1}} \,\Big|\, X_{T_k} = x\Big]. \tag{13}$$

Exercising always at a fixed T_k is admissible, so $V_0 \geq \max_k V_k^{\mathrm{Eur}}$; the difference is the *early-exercise* (or switch) premium. On the reference case below the Bermudan is worth 0.016746 against 0.014328 for the most expensive European.

Reference case. Curve $P(0,t)$ at $t = 1, 2, 3, 5, 7, 10$: 0.978, 0.954, 0.930, 0.885, 0.842, 0.780; payer, $K = 3\,\%$, annual payments from 2 to $T_N = 7$; exercise dates $1, 2, 3$ with normal vols 80, 85, 90 bp; $\lambda = 3\,\%$. The bootstrap gives $\sigma = (86.12,\ 96.45,\ 106.37)$ bp.

6 The PDE method

6.1 Equation and boundary conditions

Between exercise dates, by Feynman–Kac, $V(t,x) = \mathbb{E}[e^{-\int_t^T r} V(T, X_T) \,|\, X_t = x]$ solves

$$\partial_t V + \tfrac{1}{2}\eta(t)^2 \,\partial_{xx} V - r(t,x)\, V = 0, \qquad r(t,x) = A(t) + e^{-\lambda t} x, \tag{14}$$

with $A(t) = f(0,t) + e^{-\lambda t}\big[\bar{B}(t)\alpha(t) - \gamma(t)\big]$ from (7). There is no drift term because X is a martingale; this is why the factor X, rather than r, is the natural state variable. At each T_k the value is updated by $V \leftarrow \max(V, h_k)$, and the equation is solved backwards from $V(T_m, \cdot) = h_m$.

The domain is truncated to $[-n\sqrt{\alpha(T_m)},\ n\sqrt{\alpha(T_m)}]$. Far from the origin the option is either deep in the money (exercise immediately) or worthless, so Dirichlet values equal to the largest intrinsic value among the remaining exercise dates are imposed. The truncation error is of the order of the probability of leaving the domain, $2\Phi(-n) \approx e^{-n^2/2}$, which is negligible from $n = 5$ (table 1).

6.2 Discretisation

On a uniform grid x_j with step Δx, let $\mathcal{L}^n$ be the discrete operator $(\mathcal{L}^n V)_j = \frac{1}{2}\eta(t_n)^2\,(V_{j+1} - 2V_j + V_{j-1})/\Delta x^2 - r(t_n, x_j)V_j$. The θ-scheme reads

$$\frac{V^n - V^{n+1}}{\Delta t} = \theta\,\mathcal{L}^n V^n + (1-\theta)\,\mathcal{L}^{n+1} V^{n+1}, \tag{15}$$

a tridiagonal system per step, solved by the Thomas algorithm in $O(n_x)$ operations. The time grid contains every exercise date, so that the max is applied exactly.

- $\theta = 1$ (implicit Euler, the original code) is unconditionally stable and monotone whenever $1 + \Delta t\, r(t,x) > 0$, but only first order in time.
- $\theta = \frac{1}{2}$ (Crank–Nicolson) is second order and unconditionally stable in L^2, but not L-stable: the high-frequency components created by the kink of h_k at each exercise date are damped by a factor close to -1 per step and oscillate.
- *Rannacher time-stepping* replaces the first two Crank–Nicolson steps after each exercise date by implicit steps (here: two full steps). This damps the oscillations and restores second-order convergence for non-smooth data (Rannacher 1984; Giles and Carter 2006).

6.3 Convergence

Figure 1 shows the error in time against a reference computed with $n_t = 12\,800$, and the error in space. Implicit Euler converges at order one and Crank–Nicolson with Rannacher steps at order two (the error is divided by about 4 to 5 each time n_t doubles). On this price, plain Crank–Nicolson is even more accurate at coarse steps: the oscillations it leaves near the exercise boundary are small and partly cancel in the value at $x = 0$; they matter more for the Greeks, which is why the Rannacher steps are kept by default. In space the centred scheme is second order. With $n_x = 501$, $n_t = 1000$ and Crank–Nicolson–Rannacher the price is accurate to a few 10^{-7} (space error) and costs a few tens of milliseconds in the browser.

This study also caught an error in an early version of the port: the θ-scheme used $\eta(t_n)$ in both halves of the step, a first-order error in time since $\eta(t) = \sigma(t)e^{\lambda t}$ varies within a step. The scheme now uses $\eta(t_n)$ in the implicit part and $\eta(t_{n+1})$ in the explicit part, with σ read on the segment of the step.

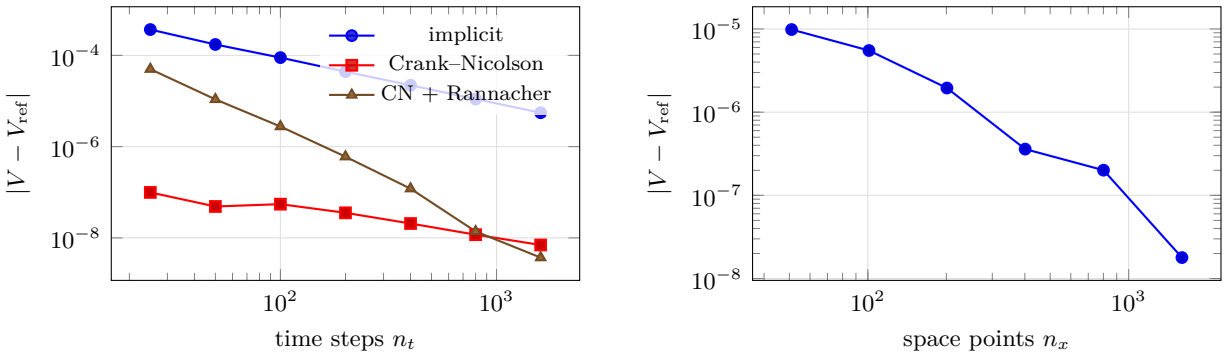


Figure 1: PDE convergence on the reference case. Left: time error ($n_x = 1001$). Right: space error (CN + Rannacher, $n_t = 4000$, reference $n_x = 4001$).

6.4 Exercise boundary

At each date the holder exercises where $h_k(x) > C_k(x)$. For a payer this is a half-line $x > x_k^\star$: high factor, high rates, valuable payer swap. Figure 2 shows C_k and h_k at T_1 and T_2; at the last date $C_m = 0$ and the option is exercised as soon as it is in the money.

n (standard deviations)	Bermudan price
2	0.01675392
2.5	0.01674738
3	0.01674689
3.5	0.01674687
4	0.01674687
5	0.01674687
6	0.01674687
7	0.01674687

Table 1: Truncation of the PDE domain to $\pm n\sqrt{\alpha(T_m)}$ (space step kept constant).

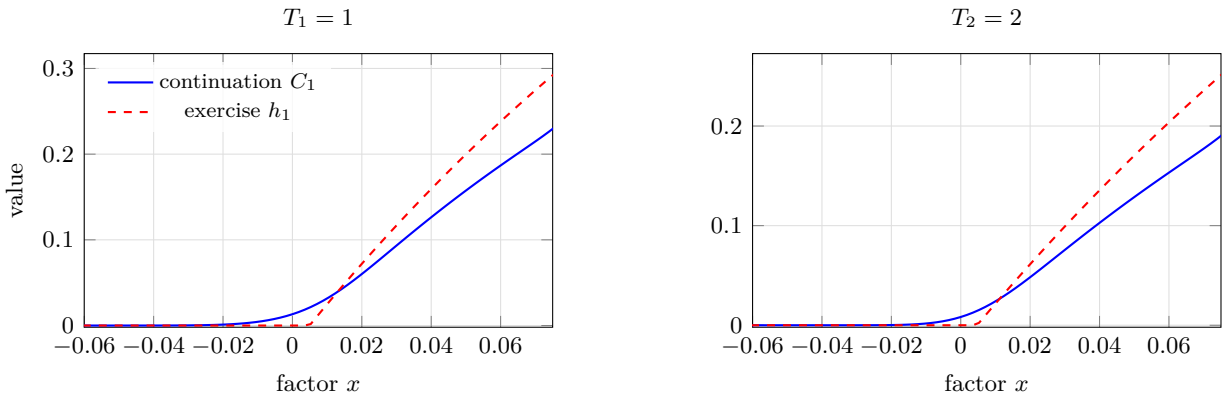


Figure 2: Continuation and exercise values from the PDE. The exercise boundary is the crossing point.

7 Longstaff–Schwartz Monte Carlo

7.1 Algorithm

The factor is simulated exactly: $X_{t+\Delta} - X_t \sim \mathcal{N}(0, \alpha(t+\Delta) - \alpha(t))$, independent of the past. The continuation value in (13) is a conditional expectation, estimated by least squares (Longstaff and Schwartz 2001).

Algorithm 1 Longstaff–Schwartz for the Bermudan swaption

simulate N paths of X (and of $I_t = \int_0^t r_s \, \mathrm{d}s$) at the exercise dates
$\mathrm{CF}^{(i)} \leftarrow h_m(X^{(i)}_{T_m})$, $\tau^{(i)} \leftarrow T_m$ for every path i
for $k = m-1, \dots, 1$ **do**
    $\mathcal{I} \leftarrow \{i : h_k(X^{(i)}_{T_k}) > 0\}$ ▷ in-the-money paths only
    regress $Y^{(i)} = e^{-(I^{(i)}_{\tau^{(i)}} - I^{(i)}_{T_k})}\,\mathrm{CF}^{(i)}$ on $\{1, \tilde{x}, \dots, \tilde{x}^d\}$, $\tilde{x} = x/\sqrt{\alpha(T_k)}$, over $i \in \mathcal{I}$, giving $\hat{C}_k$
    for $i \in \mathcal{I}$ with $h_k(X^{(i)}_{T_k}) > \hat{C}_k(X^{(i)}_{T_k})$ **do**
        $\mathrm{CF}^{(i)} \leftarrow h_k(X^{(i)}_{T_k})$, $\tau^{(i)} \leftarrow T_k$
    end for
end for
return $\hat{V}_0 = \frac{1}{N}\sum_i e^{-I^{(i)}_{\tau^{(i)}}}\,\mathrm{CF}^{(i)}$ and its standard error

Normalising the regressor by $\sqrt{\alpha(T_k)}$ does not change the fit but keeps the normal equations well conditioned; the least-squares problem is solved by a Householder QR factorisation.

7.2 The two biases

Write $\hat{\tau}$ for the exercise rule produced by the regression.

- *Low bias.* For any stopping rule, $\mathbb{E}[\beta_{\hat{\tau}}^{-1} h_{\hat{\tau}}] \le V_0$. If $\hat{\tau}$ is estimated on one set of paths and applied to an independent set, the second set gives an unbiased estimate of this quantity, hence a *lower bound* of V_0 in expectation.
- *High bias.* When the same paths are used to estimate $\hat{\tau}$ and to price, the rule is fitted to the noise of those paths and anticipates their future, which pushes the estimate up.

The page offers both estimators. An upper bound can be obtained by duality (Rogers 2002; Haugh and Kogan 2004; Andersen and Broadie 2004), a natural extension.

7.3 Discounting

Discounting must use the path of the short rate: $\beta_{T_k}^{-1} = e^{-I_{T_k}}$. The implementation simulates X on a fine grid (52 steps per year by default) and integrates $r(t, X_t)$ by the trapezoidal rule, an $O(\Delta t^2)$ error. An exact alternative exists: (X_t, I_t) is a Gaussian vector whose mean and covariance follow from (7), so it could be sampled jointly at the exercise dates without any grid.

7.4 Results

Figure 3 shows the three estimators against the PDE price. With exact discounting, both the in-sample and the independent estimators contain the PDE value in their confidence intervals: with a degree-2 regression on one factor, both biases are smaller than the statistical error at these sample sizes. The original discounting (section 8) stays about 3 bp of notional above the PDE whatever the number of paths: it is a bias, not noise.

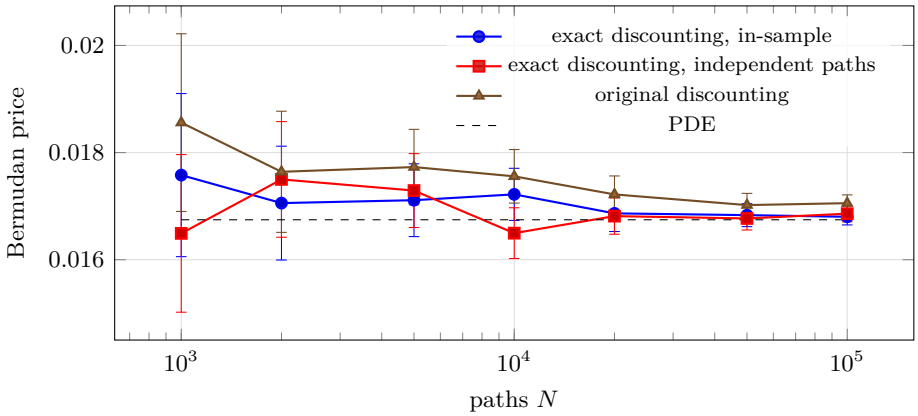


Figure 3: Longstaff–Schwartz estimates with 95 % confidence intervals, degree-2 regression, against the PDE price.

8 Review of the original model

8.1 A sign error in the convexity term

The original `hjm_1f.py` implements

$$P^{\text{code}}(t,T) = \frac{P(0,T)}{P(0,t)} \exp\Big(D(t,T)\big[c(t,T) - X_t\big]\Big), \tag{16}$$

that is (8) with $+c$ instead of $-c$, and its short rate, $r_t^{\text{code}} = -\partial_T \ln P^{\text{code}}(t,T)|_{T=t}$, inherits the error: $r_t^{\text{code}} = f(0,t) - e^{-\lambda t}\big[\bar{B}(t)\alpha(t) - \gamma(t)\big] + e^{-\lambda t} X_t$. Proposition 2 derives the correct sign directly from the drift condition. Because $c(t,T) > 0$ grows with $\alpha(t)$, the error grows with volatility and maturity.

Why calibration does not see it. Jamshidian's formula (proposition 4) uses $P(0,\cdot)$ and the variance v^2 of bond ratios, neither of which depends on c: Europeans are priced correctly and the calibrated σ are the same to 10^{-2} bp. The error only appears in methods that use $r(t,x)$ and $P(t,T;x)$ along paths, the PDE and the Monte Carlo, so the model prices the same European differently depending on the method.

8.2 The martingale test

Under $\mathbb{Q}$, $\mathbb{E}\big[\beta_t^{-1}P(t,T)\big]$ must equal $P(0,T)$ for every t. Figure 4 estimates it for $T = 7$ with 200 000 paths ($\sigma = 150$ bp, $\lambda = 3\,\%$). The original formula drifts away, to 2.2 % at $t = 6$; the corrected one stays within the confidence band.

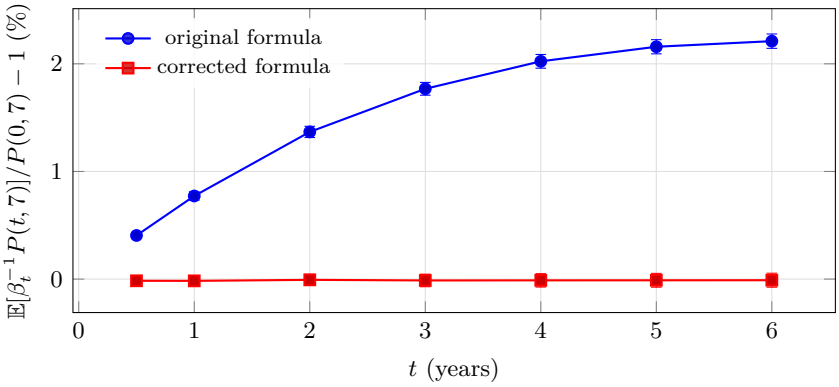


Figure 4: Martingale test of discounted bond prices, with 95 % confidence intervals.

8.3 Impact on prices

	original formula	corrected formula
$\mathbb{E}[\beta_3^{-1}P(3,7)]$, vs $P(0,7) = 0.842000$	0.856942 (+1.78 %, 83 s.e.)	0.841949 (−0.3 s.e.)
European 3y → 7y, Jamshidian	0.02582	0.02582
European 3y → 7y, PDE	0.02057	0.02582
European 3y → 7y, Monte Carlo	0.02049 ± 0.00015	0.02574 ± 0.00017
Reference Bermudan (PDE, implicit)	0.014929	0.016737
Early-exercise premium	0.000601	0.002409

Table 2: Consequences of the sign error. Rows 1–4: $\sigma = 150$ bp, $\lambda = 3\,\%$. Rows 5–6: reference case ($n_x = 501$, $n_t = 1000$); the premium is the Bermudan minus the most expensive European, 0.014328, which is the same with both formulas.

The last row is the most telling. Since Europeans are unaffected, the whole error falls on the early-exercise premium, the quantity a Bermudan model exists to price: the original formula underestimates it by 75 %.

8.4 Other findings

- *Monte Carlo discounting.* `mc_1f.py` freezes the short rate between exercise dates and discounts the exercise value back to today at $r(0)$, ignoring the curve: on the reference case, Monte Carlo bond prices are off by 0.26 % at 2 years and 0.59 % at 3 years, and the Bermudan is overpriced by about 3 bp of notional. Fixed by the exact discounting of section 7.

- *Regression bias.* Pricing on the regression paths only; independent paths and a choice of degree were added.
- *Time scheme.* Implicit Euler only; Crank–Nicolson with Rannacher steps was added (fig. 1).
- *Receiver swaptions.* The Python returns the payer formula for a receiver; the port uses bond calls.

9 Mean reversion under recalibration

9.1 Correlation between exercise dates

Since X has independent increments, $\mathrm{Cov}(X_s, X_t) = \alpha(s)$ for $s \le t$ and

$$\rho(s,t) = \mathrm{corr}(X_s, X_t) = \sqrt{\alpha(s)/\alpha(t)}. \tag{17}$$

The short rate and, to first order, the swap rates are affine in X with deterministic coefficients, so (17) is also their correlation across dates.

Proposition 6. *For a constant σ and $0 < s < t$, $\rho(s,t)^2 = \dfrac{e^{2\lambda s}-1}{e^{2\lambda t}-1}$ is strictly decreasing in $\lambda > 0$, from s/t at $\lambda = 0$ to 0 as $\lambda \to \infty$.*

Proof. $\partial_\lambda \ln \rho^2 = g(s) - g(t)$ with $g(u) = \dfrac{2u\, e^{2\lambda u}}{e^{2\lambda u}-1} = \dfrac{1}{\lambda}\,\psi(2\lambda u)$ and $\psi(z) = z/(1-e^{-z})$, which is strictly increasing on $(0,\infty)$. Hence $g(s) < g(t)$. The limits follow from $e^{2\lambda u} - 1 \sim 2\lambda u$ and from $\rho^2 \le e^{-2\lambda(t-s)} \cdot \frac{1}{1-e^{-2\lambda t}}$. □

9.2 Why the Bermudan becomes more valuable

Recalibration pins each European: in the swap-rate approximation, the k-th European fixes the model variance of its own swap rate, $\alpha(T_k)\,\kappa_k(\lambda)^2 \approx \sigma_{N,k}^2 T_k$, where $\kappa_k = \partial S_k/\partial x$ is a duration-like factor containing $e^{-\lambda T_k}$. A higher λ damps the impact of past shocks, so the calibration raises σ (fig. 5, left: from (77.9, 87.3, 96.7) bp at $\lambda = 0$ to (188.9, 214.4, 228.9) bp at $\lambda = 0.3$). The marginal law of each exercise value is then essentially unchanged, but the dates decorrelate: $\rho(T_1, T_3)$ falls from 0.513 to 0.349. With the marginals fixed and the dependence weaker, the right to choose the best date is worth more, exactly as the value of an option on the maximum of two assets increases when their correlation decreases. The Bermudan rises from 0.01656 to 0.01848 while every European stays at its market price (fig. 5, right).

Without recalibration (σ frozen at the $\lambda = 3\,\%$ values) the effect reverses: a higher λ only reduces the variance of every future rate, and every price falls.

Remark 3. This is a tendency, not a theorem: it relies on the calibration set (co-terminal Europeans), on the payoff, and on the one-factor structure. In a two-factor model, correlation between dates can be lowered without changing λ, which is one reason why two-factor models are preferred for products sensitive to inter-date correlation.

10 Validation

The JavaScript engine of the page is a line-by-line port of the Python package. With the original formula and the notebook settings (implicit scheme, $n_x = 501$, $n_t = 1000$, ± 5 standard deviations) it reproduces every PDE price of the notebook to the eighth decimal, for all grids, domains, $\lambda \in [0, 0.3]$ and $K \in [2\,\%, 4\,\%]$, and the calibrated σ to 10^{-17}. With the corrected formula, Jamshidian, the PDE and the Monte Carlo agree on European swaptions, and simulated bond prices recover the curve within their confidence intervals.

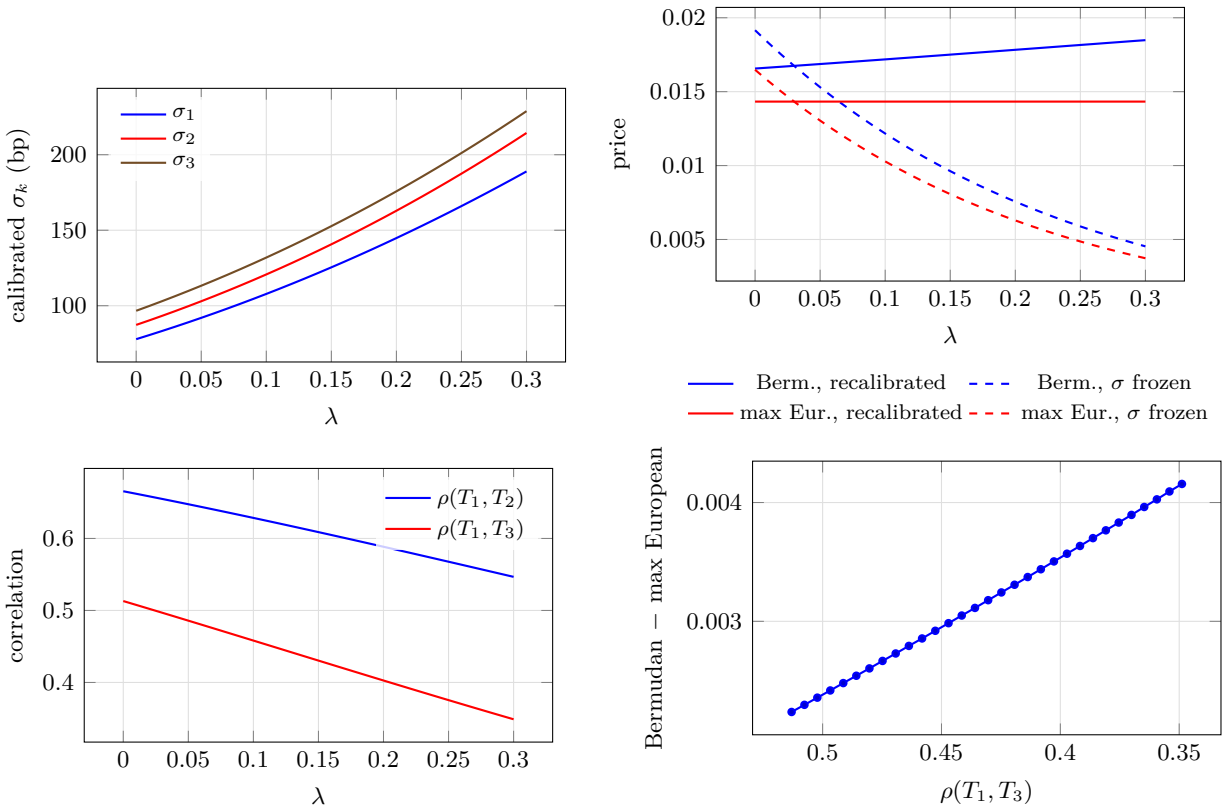


Figure 5: Mean reversion with recalibration. Top: calibrated volatilities and prices. Bottom: correlation between exercise dates and the early-exercise premium against it (λ from 0 to 0.3).

11 Conclusion

The one-factor HJM model calibrates exactly and quickly to co-terminal Europeans and prices Bermudans accurately by PDE, with Monte Carlo as an independent check. The review shows the value of model-level tests: a convexity sign error invisible to the calibration was caught by a martingale test and by the inconsistency between methods, and it moved the Bermudan price by 12 %. The remaining model risk sits in λ, which the calibration does not determine and which moves the Bermudan by 12 % over a plausible range. Natural extensions are an exact joint simulation of $(X, \int r)$, a dual upper bound for the Monte Carlo, the calibration of λ to correlation-sensitive instruments, and a two-factor version.

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